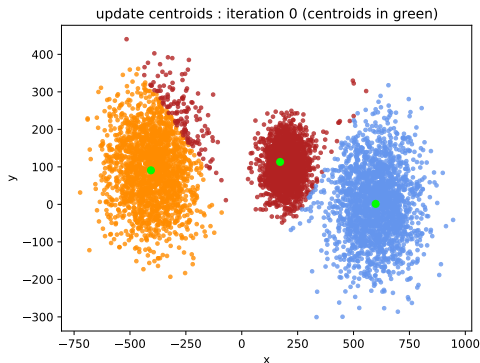


# Fondamentaux théoriques du machine learning



## Dimensionality reduction

Principal component analysis

## Clustering

## Dimensionality reduction

### Principal component analysis

## Clustering

# Dimensionality reduction

We consider the space  $\mathcal{X}$  that contains the data, for either supervised or unsupervised learning. In machine learning, we often have  $\mathcal{X} \in \mathbb{R}^d$ .

- ▶ If  $d$  is large (e.g.  $\geq 10^4$ ), the algorithms that run on the data might become too slow to be used, as their algorithmic complexity depends on  $d$  (potentially in a quadratic or exponential way, curse of dimensionality)

# Dimensionality reduction

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- ▶ **However**, often the data might actually occupy a **subspace** of lower dimension  $q$ , or it may be possible to project the data on such a subspace without losing too much information.
  - ▶ Working in a subspace of lower dimension might speed up the algorithms.
  - ▶ It may also allow visualization of the data.

# Main methods of dimensionality reduction

- ▶ **feature selection** : selecting a subset of the original dimensions.
- ▶ **feature extraction** : computing new features from the original features.

# Principal component analysis (PCA)

- ▶ PCA is a **linear feature extraction** technique.
- ▶ Points in  $\mathbb{R}^d$  are linearly projected on a well chosen affine subspace of  $\mathbb{R}^q$ , with  $q \leq d$ .

## Formalization as a (empirical) variance maximimisation problem

Without loss of generality, we assume the data are **centered**, which means that

$$\bar{x} = \sum_{i=1}^n x_n = 0 \in \mathbb{R}^d \quad (1)$$

$X$  is the design matrix like in OLS. The **first principal component** is a vector  $w \in \mathbb{R}^d$ , with  $\|w\| = 1$ , such that  $\hat{Var}(w^T x)$  is maximal, where  $\hat{Var}$  denotes the empirical variance.



## Variance

$$\overline{w^T x} = w^T \bar{x} = 0 \quad (2)$$

Hence,

$$\begin{aligned} \hat{Var}(w^T x) &= \frac{1}{n-1} \sum_{i=1}^n ((w^T x)_i - \overline{w^T x})^2 \\ &= \frac{1}{n-1} \sum_{i=1}^n (w^T x_i)^2 \end{aligned} \quad (3)$$

## Variance maximisation problem

We can then formulate the problem as finding  $w$ ,  $\|w\| = 1$  such that

$$\sum_{i=1}^n (w^T x_i)^2 \quad (4)$$

is maximal.

## First principal component

We look for  $w$ ,  $\|w\| = 1$  such that

$$\sum_{i=1}^n (w^T x_i)^2 \quad (5)$$

is maximal.

### Proposition

$w$  is the eigenvector of  $X^T X$  with largest eigenvalue  $\lambda_{\max}$ .

## First principal component

We look for  $w$ ,  $\|w\| = 1$  such that

$$\sum_{i=1}^n (w^T x_i)^2 \quad (6)$$

is maximal.

### Proposition

$w$  is the eigenvector of  $X^T X$  with largest eigenvalue  $\lambda_{\max}$ .

**Exercise 1:** Show the proposition.

## Reconstruction error

Alternately, we can formulate the problem as a **reconstruction error minimization**.

$$\mathbb{R}^d = \text{Vect}(w) \oplus \text{Vect}(w)^\perp \quad (7)$$

and if  $\|w\| = 1$ ,

$$\begin{aligned} \forall x \in \mathbb{R}^d, \|x\|^2 &= \|(x^T w)w\|^2 + \|x - (x^T w)w\|^2 \\ &= (x^T w)^2 + \|x - (x^T w)w\|^2 \end{aligned} \quad (8)$$

## Reconstruction error

We can formulate the problem as a **reconstruction error minimization**. If  $\|w\| = 1$ ,

$$\begin{aligned}\forall x \in \mathbb{R}^d, \|x\|^2 &= \|(x^T w)w\|^2 + \|x - (x^T w)w\|^2 \\ &= (x^T w)^2 + \|x - (x^T w)w\|^2\end{aligned}\tag{9}$$

Hence,

$$\begin{aligned}\sum_{i=1}^n \|x_i\|^2 &= \sum_{i=1}^n (x_i^T w)^2 + \sum_{i=1}^n \|x_i - (x_i^T w)w\|^2 \\ &= \hat{Var}(w^T x) + \sum_{i=1}^n \|x_i - (x_i^T w)w\|^2\end{aligned}\tag{10}$$

## Reconstruction error

$$\sum_{i=1}^n \|x_i\|^2 = \hat{Var}(w^T x) + \sum_{i=1}^n \|x_i - (x_i^T w)w\|^2 \quad (11)$$

We can see  $\sum_{i=1}^n \|x_i - (x_i^T w)w\|^2$  as a **reconstruction error**, when the data are projected on  $\text{Vect}(w)$ .

Maximizing the variance of the projections is equivalent to minimizing the reconstruction errors obtained by projection.

## Several principal components

Most of the time, we project the data on several principal components.

- ▶ 1] compute the first principal component  $w_1$
- ▶ 2] project the data on  $\text{Vect}(w_1)^\perp$
- ▶ 3] start again on the projected data



## Reconstruction error

The interpretation stays the same. If  $p_F(x)$  is the projection of  $x$  on the subspace spanned by the principal components :

$$\|x\|^2 = \|p_F(x)\|^2 + \|x - p_F(x)\|^2 \quad (12)$$

The principal components are the largest eigenvectors of  $X^T X \in \mathbb{R}^d$ ,  $d$  with norm 1. They are **orthogonal** to each other.

# Inertia

We can define an inertia :

$$I_F = \sum_{i=1}^n \|x - p_F(x)\|^2 \quad (13)$$

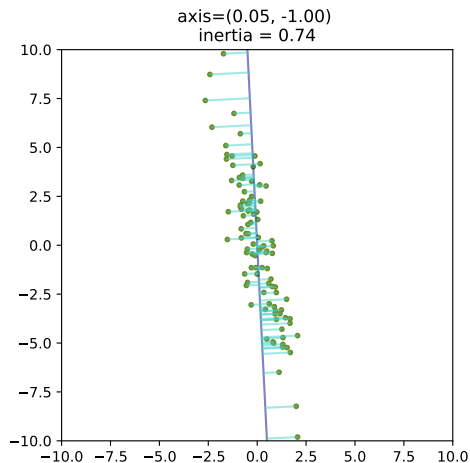
We look for the subspace that minimizes the inertia  $I_F$ .

# Inertia

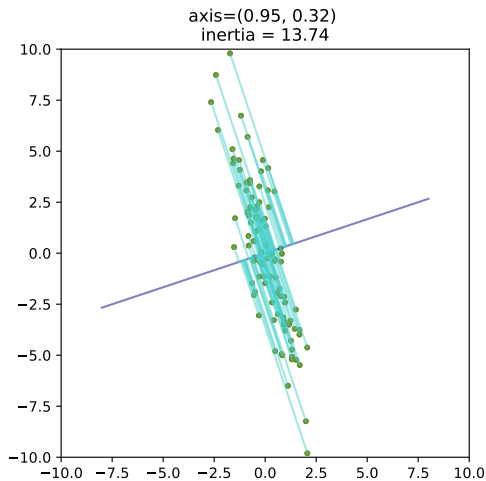
## Exercise 2: No inertia

In what situations could we have  $I_F = 0$ ?

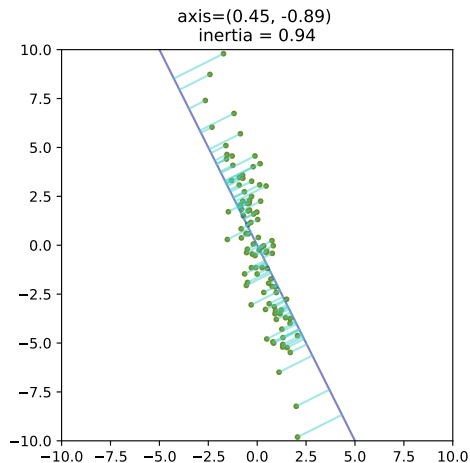
# Inertia



# Inertia



# Inertia



## Iris dataset

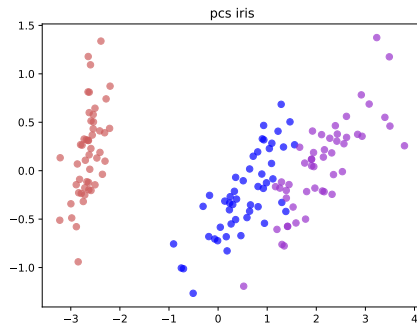


Figure – PCA performed on the iris dataset, keeping 2 dimensions. We see that the principal components are able to separate the data.

In this paper, astrophysicists use PCA in order to test a new star temperature prediction method [?]

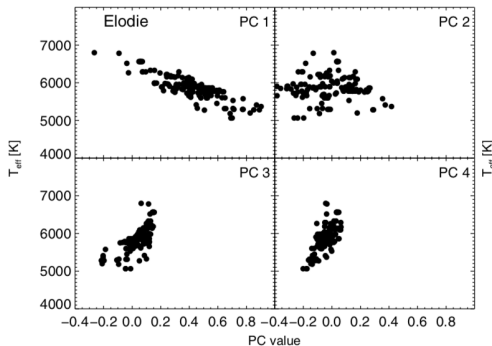
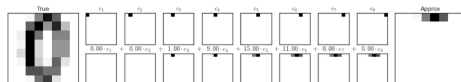


Figure – PCA used in order to predict temperature.

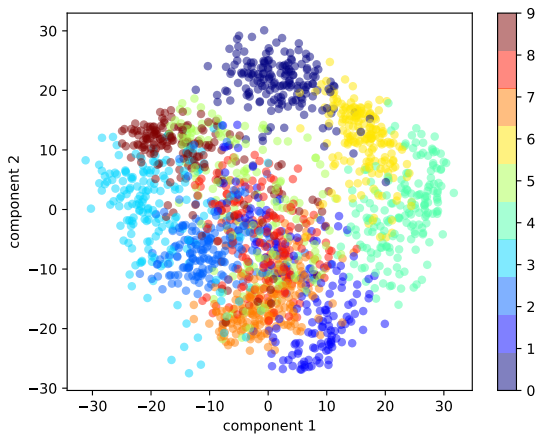


## PCA on digits

- ▶ We can perform the PCA on a dataset consisting in  $8 \times 8$  pixels images of digits, in order to see if the PCA allows a visualization of some structure in the data.



## PCA on digits



## PCA on digits : reconstruction

With 8 principal components, we can monitor the reconstruction of the images (originally in 64 dimensions)

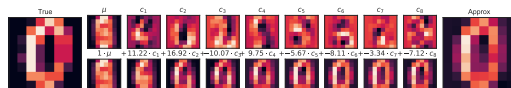


Figure – Reconstruction of 0

<https://jakevdp.github.io/PythonDataScienceHandbook/05.09-principal-component-analysis.html>

## PCA on digits : reconstruction

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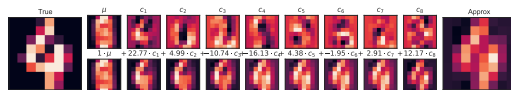


Figure – Reconstruction of 4

<https://jakevdp.github.io/PythonDataScienceHandbook/05.09-principal-component-analysis.html>

## Explained variance

A natural question is : what is a relevant number of principal components ?

A common quantity that is used is **explained variance**. Each component  $w_k$  carries a percentage of the total variance of the data.

$$\frac{\hat{Var}(w_k^T x)}{\sum_{j=1}^d \hat{Var}(x^j)} \quad (14)$$

where  $\hat{Var}(x^j)$  is the variance of the (centered) feature  $j$ .

$$\hat{Var}(x^j) = \frac{1}{n-1} \sum_{i=1}^n (x_i^j)^2 \quad (15)$$

## Number of components

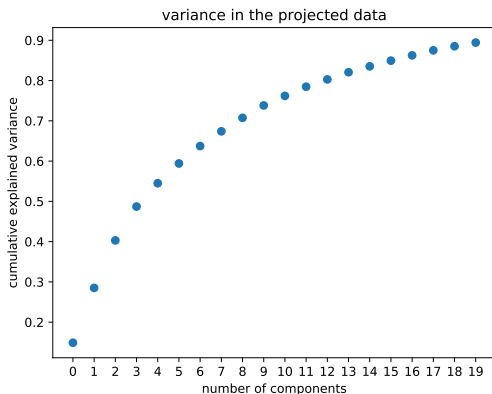
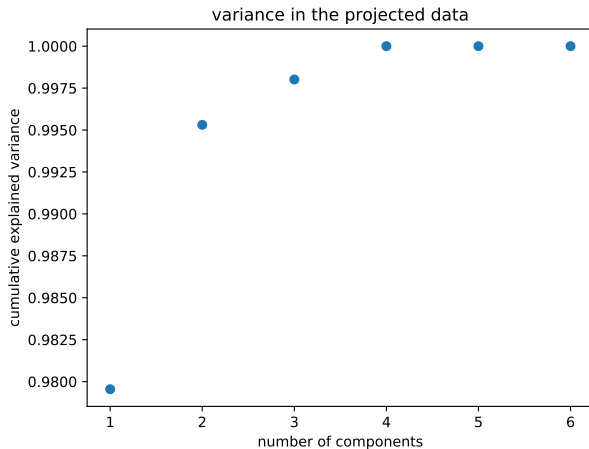


Figure – Variance of the projected data as a function of the number of components (digits dataset)

## Number of components

Exercise 3: What happens with this dataset ?



## Number of components

**Conclusion :** PCA can help determine whether some components carry no information in the data.



# Shortcomings of PCA

PCA is sensitive to :

- ▶ outliers
- ▶ initial data scaling

# Unsupervised learning

From a number of samples  $x_i$ , you want to retrieve information on their structure : **modelisation**. The three main unsupervised learning problems are :

- ▶ clustering
- ▶ density estimation
- ▶ dimensionality reduction

# Clustering

**Clustering** consists in partitioning the data.  $\forall i, x_i \in \mathcal{X}^n$ .

$$D_n = \{(x_i)_{i \in [1, \dots, n]}\} \quad (16)$$

A **partition** is a set of  $K$  subsets  $A_k \subset D_n$ , such that



$$\cup_{k \in [1, \dots, K]} A_k = D_n \quad (17)$$

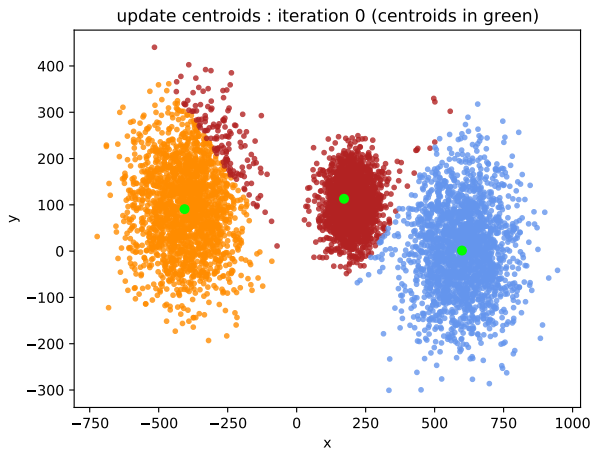


$$\forall k \neq k', A_k \cap A_{k'} = \emptyset \quad (18)$$

## Partitions

- ▶ **Example 1** :  $A$  is the set of even integers,  $B$  the set of odd integers. Is  $(A, B)$  a partition of  $\mathbb{N}$ ?
- ▶ **Example 2** :  $C$  is the set of multiples of 2,  $D$  the set of multiples of 3. Is  $(C, D)$  a partition of  $\mathbb{N}$ ?

## Example : partition of data



## Applications of clustering

Example applications :

- ▶ spam filtering [?, ]
- ▶ fake news identification [?, ]
- ▶ marketing and sales
- ▶ document analysis [?, ]
- ▶ traffic classification [?, ]

Some of these applications can be considered to be semi-supervised learning.

## Vector quantization

**Vector quantization** consists in computing **prototypes**

$\Omega = (\omega_k)_{k \in [1, \dots, K]} \in \mathcal{X}^K$  that represent the data well.

This implies that a **metric** is defined on  $\mathcal{X}$ .

Most often, this is interesting / useful if  $K \ll n$ .

## Voronoi subsets

We assume a loss (we can think of it as a distance here)  $L$  is defined on  $\mathcal{X}$ . The **Voronoi subset** of  $\omega$  is defined as

$$V(\omega) = \{x \in D_n, \arg \min_{\omega' \in \Omega} L(\omega', x) = \omega\} \quad (19)$$

- ▶ We assume that  $\arg \min$  returns one single element.
- ▶ The Voronoi subsets form a partition of  $D_n$ .



## Distortion

To measure the quality of a Voronoï partition, we introduce the **distortion**  $R(\Omega)$ .

For each  $x$ , we note  $h_\Omega(x) = \arg \min_{\omega' \in \Omega} L(\omega', x)$ .

$$R(\Omega) = \frac{1}{n} \sum_{i=1}^n L(x_i, h_\Omega(x_i)) \quad (20)$$

## Distortion

For each  $x$ , we note  $h_{\Omega}(x) = \arg \min_{\omega' \in \Omega} L(\omega', x)$ .

$$\begin{aligned} R(\Omega) &= \frac{1}{n} \sum_{i=1}^n L(x_i, h_{\Omega}(x_i)) \\ &= \frac{1}{n} \sum_{\omega \in \Omega} \sum_{x \in V(\omega)} L(x_i, h_{\Omega}(x_i)) \\ &= \frac{1}{n} \sum_{\omega \in \Omega} V_{\Omega}(\omega) \end{aligned} \tag{21}$$

with

$$V_{\Omega}(\omega) = \sum_{x \in V(\omega)} L(x_i, h_{\Omega}(x_i)) \tag{22}$$

## Minimum of distortion

We want to find the prototypes for which the distortion is **minimal**.

- ▶ The set of prototypes minimizing distortion might not be unique.
- ▶ We need to tune  $K$  (number of prototypes).

## Vector quantization techniques

- ▶ K-means
- ▶ Growing neural gas (GNG)
- ▶ Self-organizing maps

# K-means clustering

- ▶  $\mathcal{X} = \mathbb{R}^d$ .
- ▶  $L(x, y) = ||x - y||^2$ .

## Objective function

With

- ▶  $\Omega = \{\omega_1, \dots, \omega_K\} \in \mathbb{R}^{K,d}$ .
- ▶  $z_i^k = 1$  if  $x_i$  is assigned to  $\omega_k$ ,  $z_i^k = 0$  otherwise.  
 $z = (z_i^k) \in \mathbb{R}^{n,K}$ .

we define the objective function

$$J(\Omega, z) = \sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{k=1}^K z_i^k \|x_i - \omega_k\|^2 \quad (23)$$

It is also called the **inertia**.

## K-means algorithm

**Result:**  $\Omega \in \mathbb{R}^{K,d}$

$\Omega \leftarrow$  Random initialization;

$z = M$  where  $M$  is the  $n \times K$  matrix with 0's;

**while** *Convergence criteria is not satisfied* **do**

- | a] Greedily minimize  $J$  with respect to  $z$ ;
- | b] Minimize  $J$  with respect to  $\Omega$ ;

**end**

return  $\Omega$

**Algorithm 1:** K-means (Lloyd algorithm)

## Stopping criterion

To stop the algorithm, the norm of the difference between  $\Omega_t$  and  $\Omega_{t+1}$  must be smaller than a given tolerance. (e.g.  $1e^{-4}$ ). Here it is a norm between matrix (Frobenius norm) :

$$\|A\|_F = \sqrt{\sum_{i=1}^n A_{ij}^2} \quad (24)$$



## Minimization

We focus on step b]. How can we minimize  $J$  with respect to  $\Omega$ ?

## Minimization

### Exercise 4 : Convexity :

Show that  $J(\Omega, z)$  is convex with respect to  $\Omega$ .

$$J(\Omega, z) = \sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{k=1}^K z_i^k \|x_i - \omega_k\|^2 \quad (25)$$

Hence, to minimize  $J$  with respect to  $\Omega$ , we just need to cancel the gradient.

# Minimization

## Exercise 5 : Gradient :

Compute the gradient of  $J(\Omega, z)$  with respect to  $\Omega$  and deduce the minimizer  $\Omega^*$ .

- ▶  $z$  is fixed
- ▶ we can see  $\Omega$  has a vector of  $\mathbb{R}^{Kd}$ .

# Convexity

Is  $J(\Omega, z)$  convex in  $z$ ?

# Convexity

Is  $J(\Omega, z)$  convex in  $z$ ?

**No**, as  $z$  is not even defined on a convex set, so convexity can not be defined anyways!

Hence, the function might have **local minima**.

## Suboptimal clustering

**Exercise 5 : Local minima** : propose a setting (dataset, initialization) for which the algorithm outputs a bad set of centroids.

## Suboptimal clustering

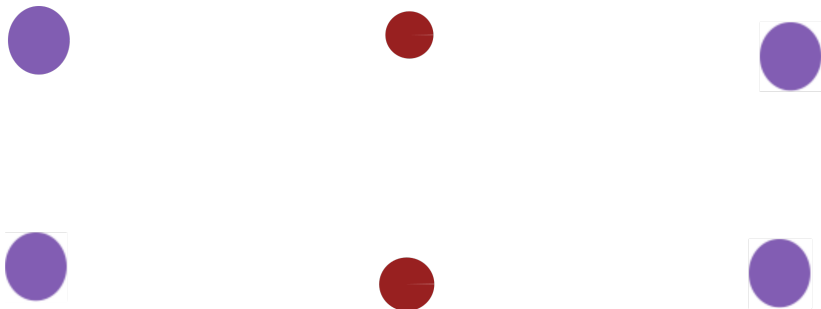


Figure – Initialization of centroids in red.

## Random initialization

Hence, the result of K-means strongly depends on the initial position of the centroids.

A common approach is to restart the algorithm several times and select the result with lowest inertia.



## Drawbacks of inertia minimization

K-means is based on the minimization of the inertia and hence on the euclidean distance. **However**, in some contexts, the euclidean distance is not the adapted metric.

https:

[//scikit-learn.org/stable/modules/clustering.html](https://scikit-learn.org/stable/modules/clustering.html)

# References I